Military Service and Immigrants' Integration: Evidence from the Vietnam Draft Lotteries

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Abstract

Seminal theories in political science argue that military service is a critical driver of minority integration. However, a major obstacle bedeviling the study of military service is self-selection: individuals who are better integrated may be more likely to join the military in the first place. We address the selection problem by examining the effects of military conscription during the Vietnam War using an instrumental variables approach. Conscription during 1970--72 was decided on the basis of national draft lotteries that assigned draft numbers based on an individual's date of birth. Using the draft lottery instrument, we find no evidence of a causal effect of military service on a range of integration outcomes from the 2000 decennial census. At least for the Vietnam era, the link between service and long-term integration is largely driven by self-selection, which points to important scope conditions for the integrationist view.

* Note: This project is one of several joint projects by the authors. Author names appear in reverse alphabetical order and reflect a principle of rotation. We are grateful to Joe Ballegeer for assistance with the restricted-use data. Any views expressed are those of the authors and not those of the U.S. Census Bureau. The Census Bureau has reviewed this data product to ensure appropriate access, use, and disclosure avoidance protection of the confidential source data used to produce this product. This research was performed at a Federal Statistical Research Data Center under FSRDC Project Number 2896 (CBDRB-FY24-P2896-R11129, CBDRB-FY24-0364, CBDRBFY24-P2896-R11579, and CBDRB-FY25-0074).

Given global trends in international mobility, many countries are now host to significant populations of immigrant origin. A core political challenge in these societies concerns the incorporation of new arrivals into the national mainstream. Seminal work in political science, sociology, and economics argues that military service is critical for constructing national identity and fostering immigrants' integration (Janowitz 1976; Posen 1993; Weber 1976). Reflecting this view of military service, US President Theodore Roosevelt advocated military training as a means of "Americanizing" new immigrants (Krebs 2006, 1). Today, states as diverse as Singapore and Morocco recently introduced national military service as a means of binding their nations together (North Africa Post 2018; Ostwald 2018).

These aspirations resonate with several strands of scholarship linking military service to immigrants' incorporation. Weber (1976) famously argued that militaries act as "schools for the nation" by inculcating a sense of patriotism among service members. Other work posits that service can integrate peripheral groups by fostering contact between "natives" and immigrants (Finseraas and Kotsadam 2017; Finseraas et al. 2019; Mazumder 2017). Additionally, military service can facilitate access to citizenship and formal educational training,[1] thereby shaping immigrants' integration trajectories (Hainmueller et al. 2017). Further, by reducing legal and socioeconomic differences between newcomers and the established population, these measures may also increase the degree to which immigrants are accepted within the mainstream (Hainmueller and Hopkins 2015).

A major challenge bedeviling the study of military service and immigrant incorporation is the problem of self-selection – namely, immigrants who are better integrated may be more likely to join the military in the first place. Feelings of patriotism, pride in their adopted country, or a desire to prove themselves as members of the nation may lead immigrants and minorities to serve (Burk 1995; Rosales 2017). Indeed, some marginalized groups have embraced military service on the grounds that service can be used to claim the rights of citizenship (Koehler-Derrick and Lee

[1]The US Immigration and Nationality Act of 1952 waives residency and physical presence requirements for noncitizen servicemembers, while the GI Bill subsidizes the costs of higher education.

2023; Krebs 2006; Salyer 2004). For these reasons, the correlation between military service and integration outcomes is likely to be biased.

We address the self-selection problem by examining the effects of military conscription during the Vietnam War. Conscription during the years 1970–1972 was decided on the basis of national draft lotteries that assigned draft numbers based on an individual's day, month, and year of birth. This randomization into military service mitigates the self-selection problem and allows us to estimate the causal effect of military service on integration outcomes.[2]

We link lottery numbers to first-generation immigrant men who appear in the 2000 long-form decennial census, the first census to report exact dates of birth (Bureau of the Census 2000).[3] We consider multiple facets of integration including naturalization decisions, residential choices, English usage, and marriage patterns. These outcomes, observed some thirty years after the Vietnam War, allow us to assess the long-term effects of military service on integration outcomes.

Overall, we find little support for the integrationist view of military service. While service itself strongly and positively predicts outcomes in our regression models that do not account for self-selection, these results disappear completely once we instrument using draft risk. Instead, our two-stage-least-squares (2SLS) models produce *negatively signed*, statistically insignificant coefficients. Our findings are similar when comparing immigrants from Western versus non-Western countries. Taken together, our evidence suggests that – at least for the Vietnam era – the link between military service and immigrants' integration is largely driven by self-selection.

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[2]A number of studies have used the draft lottery to examine the effects of military service. See especially Angrist and Chen (2011), but also Angrist (1990); Davenport (2015); Erikson and Stoker (2011); Green et al. (2019); Green and Hyman-Metzger (2024); Johnson and Dawes (2016), and Lupton (2022). Our study relates most directly to Mazumder (2017) who examines the effects of military service in World War I.

[3]For other work using census data to measure integration, see e.g. Fouka (2019, 2020); Fouka et al. (2022) and Mazumder (2017).

Military service and immigrant integration

The question of how to integrate peripheral groups into the national core is not a new challenge. In fact, immigrant and minority integration represents just one face of a larger question confronting state- and nation-builders alike: how can unity be created from diversity?

An important means through which states have attempted to engineer political community is (mandatory) military service. A canonical example comes from the case of France during the Revolutionary and Third Republic eras. The Jacobins saw the new Revolutionary army as a melting pot in which regionalisms would give way to a French identity. As Jean-Paul Bertaud observed in his history of the Revolutionary Army, "the Jacobins tirelessly taught men from Alsace, the Auvergne, and the Midi that they were all sons of the same country. The army was the instrument of national unity par excellence" (Bertaud 1988, 170). The army of the Third Republic continued this work through ceremonies that displayed and celebrated national symbols and by spreading the French language among soldiers who had previously spoken only "dialect" (Weber 1976, 298–9).

Other European states also saw military service as a vehicle for knitting together diverse groups into a single national community. In the wake of the Napoleonic threat to the United Kingdom, British authorities formed militias to defend the homeland. They sought to ensure that volunteers "were brought into contact with wider loyalties than attachment to just one village, or just one county, or even to just one of the three component parts of Great Britain... every volunteer was invited by wartime propaganda to see himself as a guardian of British freedoms and to think in terms of Britain as a whole" (Colley 1992, 320). In tsarist Russia, the introduction of universal conscription in 1874 was meant to increase both military capability and social solidarity along lines of civic inclusiveness (Sanborn 2003, 65). Dmitry Milyutin, the Minister of War under Tsar Alexander II, advocated for the inclusion of a wide range of non-Russian ethnic groups under the new law, arguing that "military service presented the best means for 'weakening tribal differences among the people'" (Sanborn 2003, 65).

More recent examples illustrate the enduring appeal of the idea that the military can build political communities. In 1949, David Ben-Gurion, the first prime minister of Israel, articulated a vision of the Israel Defense Force as a homogenizing entity that would "heal tribal and Diaspora divisions" (quoted in Cohen 1999, 388). Newly-independent Singapore introduced its 1967 National Service policy to bind together Singapore's multi-racial population and inculcate the values of the nation (Ostwald 2018, 125). Bucking a worldwide trend against the practice, the United Arab Emirates introduced conscription in 2014, a move that "can be seen as one of [the state's] boldest efforts to involve the population in the construction of a shared Emirati consciousness" (Alterman and Balboni 2017, 5). When Morocco similarly reinstated mandatory military service in 2018, official rhetoric stressed that service would inculcate patriotism and a sense of belonging to the homeland (North Africa Post 2018).

Mechanisms

These examples hint at two underlying mechanisms through which military service can integrate peripheral groups: SOCIALIZATION and CONTACT. Although many organizations socialize their members, SOCIALIZATION is especially important for militaries because soldiers are asked – and, in the case of conscription, compelled – to risk their lives in service to their country. Inculcating patriotism and loyalty to that country, and encouraging individuals to see themselves as members of that country's political community, are important tasks directly linked to the military's ability to fight and win wars. Militaries thus act as "schools for the nation" by providing training in citizenship (Krebs 2004, Pye 1961, 80). In Third Republic France, the military quite literally performed this function: an 1818 law "led to the creation of regimental schools where soldiers could learn how to read, write, and count – and what it meant to be a French citizen" (Weber 1976, 298).

How might socialization foster the integration of peripheral groups such as minorities? One important aspect here concerns the forging of a broader national identity that can transcend more

parochial ties (Gaertner and Dovidio 2005; Transue 2007). In identifying more strongly with the national identity of the dominant core, immigrants de-emphasize the boundaries separating themselves from the mainstream. Simultaneously, native-born individuals may perceive immigrants who serve in the military as more "legitimate" members of the national community. Both processes serve to facilitate social integration.

A second mechanism by which military service plays an integrative function for peripheral groups is via intergroup CONTACT (Allport 1954). Specifically, contact between immigrants and the core native-born population may debunk negative stereotypes, reduce intergroup anxieties, and forge friendships that create positive affective spillovers to other outgroup members. Moreover, the close nature of service in the military is particularly conducive to equal status as well as cooperative and institutionally-sanctioned contact, thereby fulfilling important scope conditions identified in Allport.

Extant research has produced evidence of positive contact effects running from core to peripheral groups.[4] Allport (1954, 277–278) himself highlights an earlier study from Stouffer's volume on *The American Soldier* showing that white GIs in racially-mixed units in World War II were more favorably disposed to serving with African Americans. More recent evidence to the same effect is presented by Carrell et al. (2019). In the Vietnam context, Green and Hyman-Metzger (2024)

[4]In a field experimental context, Finseraas and Kotsadam (2017) and Finseraas et al. (2019) demonstrate that randomly assigning "native" Norwegian soldiers to share rooms with ethnic minority recruits during basic army training improves (some) immigration attitudes and behaviors. Two separate studies on military service in Spain find that conscripts who originate from regions with strong peripheral nationalism and serve outside those regions are more likely to identify as Spanish and more likely to sympathize with people from the region of service (Bagues and Roth 2023; Cáceres-Delpiano et al. 2021). Finally, Ronconi and Ramos-Toro (2025) find that exposure to diverse peers during military service reduces perceived social distance to various outgroups in Argentina.

showed that white men who were selected for the draft showed more positive racial attitudes, but that the effects faded over time.

The Vietnam War and the Draft Lottery

To circumvent the challenge of non-random selection into the military, we examine the effect of service on immigrant integration outcomes in the case of the Vietnam War. We mitigate concerns about self-selection by exploiting the Vietnam-era draft lottery system which randomized the probability of being called to serve. As scholars before us have argued, the lottery effectively operated as a natural experiment (Angrist 1990), thereby allowing us to estimate the causal effect of military service on integration.

Although US military involvement in Vietnam was initially advisory, combat operations began in 1965 after the Gulf of Tonkin incident. Troop levels escalated rapidly, peaking at over 500,000 in 1968. Over the course of the war, the US would deploy more than three million service members to Southeast Asia (Department of Veterans Affairs 2021). To meet these manpower needs, the government relied on conscription, and men ages 18–26 were required to register with the Selective Service System. Importantly for our purposes, registration applied even to resident noncitizens (i.e., immigrants).

In 1969, the Nixon Administration implemented a lottery system to determine the order of call. Each lottery applied to a cohort of men born in a certain year. The first lottery (December 1969) affected men born in the period 1944–1950. Subsequent lotteries involved 19-year-olds only. Thus, the July 1970 drawing involved men born in 1951, and the men born in 1952 were assigned draft numbers in August 1971. Although lotteries continued to be held every year until 1975, draft calls applied only to the first three lotteries. The last draft call took place in December 1972.

The draft lottery operated as follows. Random sequence numbers (RSNs) from 1 to 366 were randomly assigned to all dates of birth in the relevant birth cohorts. Each draft was also associated

with an administrative processing number (APN), which designated the highest lottery number called that year. Men with an RSN at or below the ceiling were at risk for being drafted. The APN was 195 in the 1969 lottery, 125 in the 1970 lottery, and 95 in the 1971 lottery.[5] Although a number of deferments and avenues for avoiding the draft existed, past research has shown that the lottery functions as a strong instrument for Vietnam-era veteran status (Angrist and Chen 2011).

Research Design and Data

Sample

Identifying an individual's draft number (and hence draft risk) requires data on his exact date of birth. This information first becomes available in the restricted-use files of the long-form 2000 decennial census (Bureau of the Census 2000).[6] We focus on the population of male, draft-eligible, first-generation immigrants, defined as individuals who were born outside of the United States to non-American parents. Our sample also includes men born in US territories such as Guam and Puerto Rico who are arguably "foreign in a domestic sense" (Burnett and Marshall 2001, 1). We further restrict the sample to those individuals who had arrived in the United States before 1969, the year of the first lottery drawing.

Turning to draft eligibility, this criterion could conceivably cover all men born between 1944 and 1952. However, in line with Angrist and Chen (2011), our analyses show that the RSN is

[5]These numbers were not known in advance and depended upon the military's manpower needs.

[6]The restricted-use files are protected under US law but are accessible to researchers who agree to comply with procedures to avoid the disclosure of personal identifiable information and other confidential data. As such, the US Census Bureau prohibits release of replication data, but replication code is available at Zhang and Lee (2025). See Section A1 of the Supplementary Material for more detail.

Table 1: Estimates of Male Immigrant Population in 2000 Long-Form Census

Birth cohort	# Draft Eligible	% at Risk of Draft	% Veterans	Compliance Rate
1949	7,350	54%	22%	5%
1950	6,700	53%	18%	7%
1951	7,000	34%	13%	6%
1952	7,450	27%	13%	9%
1949–52	28,500	41%	16%	7%

Note: Immigrant counts are from the restricted-use 2000 decennial census. Observation counts are rounded to comply with Census Bureau policy. Results have been approved for release under FSRDC Project Number 2896 (CBDRB-FY24-P2896-R11129).

a weak instrument for the 1948 birth cohort, presumably because older individuals had already entered the military before the 1969 draft lottery (Table A6.2 in the Supplementary Material). We therefore focus our analyses on the 1949–1952 birth cohorts, yielding a sample size of about 28,500 individuals of which approximately 17% served during the Vietnam era (Table 1).

How does our sample fit into the larger context of immigration to the United States? In particular, for much of the first half of the twentieth century, the US operated a system of national-origin quotas that severely restricted immigration from non-Western countries. Thus, readers may be concerned that our sample is skewed toward European immigrants whose integration trajectories may differ in myriad ways from non-European immigrants.

While it is true that immigrants of European ancestry make up the the majority of foreign-born in 1970 in terms of raw numbers, a very different picture emerges when considering the cohorts of draft-eligible men, many of whom entered the US after the opening of immigration policy. Specifically, among men aged 18-21 in 1970, around 60% hailed from the "new" immigration countries. We detail these patterns in Section A2 of the Supplementary Material.

Estimation Strategy

We examine the effect of military service on integration outcomes using two-stage least squares regression. In the first stage, we model an individual's Vietnam VETERAN status as a function of his RSN and draft cohort:

$$Veteran_i = \beta_1 Draft\ risk_i + \beta_2 \mathbf{X} + \epsilon_i \tag{1}$$

where $Draft\ risk$ = 1 if

- RSN $\leq$ 195 for men born in 1949 or 1950
- RSN $\leq$ 125 for men born in 1951
- RSN $\leq$ 95 for men born in 1952

Our first-stage specifications also contain a vector of covariates **X** including YEAR and MONTH of birth, BIRTHPLACE fixed effects, and the number of YEARS SINCE IMMIGRATION.[7]

The second stage of our analysis examines the effect of service on our integration outcomes:

$$Y_i = \gamma_1 \widehat{Veteran}_i + \gamma_2 \mathbf{X} + \mu_i \tag{2}$$

where $\widehat{Veteran}_i$ denotes VETERAN status as predicted from the first stage, and Y_i represents a range of integration outcomes described below.

The output of this analysis represents estimates of the causal effect of military service for the population of compliers – that is, those individuals who served in the military if and only if they were assigned a draft number called for induction. These effects do not necessarily generalize

[7]The inclusion of birth year as a covariate controls for cohort-by-cohort variation in draft risk which would otherwise confound the analysis.

to the entire population of foreign-born Vietnam veterans, as this population also includes true volunteers (always-takers) who would have joined the military regardless of their draft number.[8] Table 1 displays the number of draft-eligible individuals, the percentage of those at-risk and those who served, and the compliance rate.

Outcomes

We consider a broad range of behavioral outcomes to examine multiple facets of integration across the legal, linguistic, and social spheres. Our first measure is NATURALIZATION.[9] The acquisition of American citizenship represents a key component in the political incorporation of immigrants (Fouka 2019; Mazumder 2017), and citizenship itself can be a catalyst for further political and social integration (Hainmueller et al. 2017).

Our second set of measures capture the degree of RESIDENTIAL INTEGRATION at the census tract and census block-group levels. Residential selection into immigrant "enclaves" may lower both incentives as well as opportunities (through contact with the ethnic majority) to integrate into the mainstream (Danzer and Yaman 2013).

Third, we focus on English language adoption (Bleakley and Chin 2010; Harder et al. 2018; Lazear 1999). English adoption functions as a cultural signal of integration, while also signaling an ability to interact fully in the dominant language (Zhang and Lee 2020). We create two outcome

[8] Section A7 of the Supplementary Material describes compliers' characteristics (under the assumption that there exist no "defiers" – that is, individuals who would have evaded the draft under high draft risk, but who would have joined the military in the face of low draft risk).

[9] Analysis of this variable excludes individuals born in US territories who are citizens by birth. In addition, some individuals may have naturalized prior to the draft. However, due to randomization, we assume no pre-treatment differences between those "early naturalizers" who were at risk of being drafted and those who were not. We therefore interpret our estimates as causal.

measures of linguistic assimilation: ENGLISH ONLY is an indicator for whether a person speaks only English at home, while ENGLISH ABILITY is a scaled measure of how well a multilingual respondent speaks English.[10]

Finally, our fourth set of measures focuses on marriage and partner choice. On the one hand, marriage patterns display a high degree of homophily and can be said to reflect in-group preferences and norms, as well as social distance between immigrants and the mainstream (Kalmijn 1998). On the other hand, marriage between immigrants and the native-born indicates a breakdown of parochial identities in favor of a broader national identity, and has even been termed "the final stage of assimilation" (Fouka et al. 2022, 820). We code two variants of this measure that capture increasing degrees of integration: marriage to a NON-CO-NATIONAL SPOUSE and to a NATIVE-BORN SPOUSE.

Section A5 of the Supplementary Material examines the pairwise relationships between our different outcome measures. All variables move together in the expected direction.

Results

Integration Outcomes

Panel A of Table 2 displays OLS, intention-to-treat (ITT), and 2SLS estimates of the effect of military service on integration outcomes, pooling across the 1949-1952 birth cohorts. We observe from our OLS models that VETERAN status significantly and positively predicts integration across all our outcome measures. However, a wholly different pattern obtains when we turn to DRAFT RISK: the (precisely-estimated) ITT coefficients are uniformly negative, substantively close to zero, and statistically insignificant. Consequently, we observe a similar pattern of null results

[10] All analyses using these outcomes are conducted on the subsample of individuals from countries where English is not the predominant language.

in the 2SLS estimates. These latter findings thus suggest that the positive associations between VETERAN status and integration outcomes are driven by self-selection into the military.

Table 2: Effect of Military Service on Integration, 1949–52 Cohorts

	Means	OLS	ITT	2SLS	No. of obs.
Panel A: Integration Outcomes					
Naturalized	0.743	0.0769***	-0.0047	-0.0688	24500
		(0.0190)	(0.016)	(0.074)	
Residential integration tract	0.923	0.0119**	-0.0016	-0.0229	28500
		(0.0037)	(0.0011)	(0.019)	
Residential integration block group	0.916	0.0134**	-0.0022	-0.0325	28500
		(0.0044)	(0.0013)	(0.0242)	
Only English	0.245	0.0252**	-0.0055	-0.0892	26000
		(0.0081)	(0.0046)	(0.0681)	
English ability	2.810	0.205***	-0.016	-0.259	26000
		(0.041)	(0.0102)	(0.181)	
Non-co-national spouse	0.417	0.0528***	-0.0009	-0.0126	28500
		(0.0155)	(0.0056)	(0.082)	
Native-born spouse	0.335	0.0451***	-0.0085	-0.126	28500
		(0.0114)	(0.0056)	(0.0774)	
Panel B: Additional Outcomes					
Married	0.738	0.0115	0.0079	0.117	28500
		(0.0125)	(0.0041)	(0.0673)	
Some college	0.512	0.0957*	-0.002	-0.0301	28500
		(0.0428)	(0.0064)	(0.0960)	
College graduate	0.253	-0.0879**	0.0079*	0.117*	28500
		(0.0300)	(0.0040)	(0.0532)	
Unemployed	0.206	-0.0322*	-0.0042	-0.0622	28500
		(0.0159)	(0.0071)	(0.0979)	

Note: * $p < 0.05$, ** $p < 0.01$, *** $p < 0.001$. The table reports results for the effect of DRAFT RISK on integration outcomes. Dependent variables appear in the rows. Observation counts are rounded to comply with Census Bureau policy. Results have been approved for release under FSRDC Project Number 2896 (CBDRB-FY24-P2896-R11579 and CBDRB-FY25-0074).

We conduct further subgroup analyses to examine whether the effects of military service differ between Western and non-Western immigrants. Specifically, we might expect more negative results for non-Western immigrants who were more "visibly" foreign and more likely to experience discrimination both inside and outside the military. Such experiences not only reflect a lack of acceptance from the mainstream, but could also lead to a backlash (Fouka 2020), especially if service raises expectations of equal treatment that go unfulfilled.[11]

To examine this possibility, Panel A of Tables 3 and 4 replicate our analyses for Western and non-Western immigrants, respectively. We observe substantively similar patterns for both groups, indicating that our main results are unlikely to be driven by backlash effects.

Additional Outcomes

Another possible explanation for these null results may be that military service did not provide tangible benefits to immigrants, or even imposed economic costs (Angrist 1990), thereby reducing their willingness to integrate or offsetting otherwise positive effects. To explore this possibility, we examine additional outcomes measured in the 2000 census: educational attainment as measured by having SOME COLLEGE experience and being a COLLEGE GRADUATE, as well as a measure for being UNEMPLOYED.[12] The results are reported in the bottom panels of Tables 2 – 4.

We find that instrumented military service has no effect on the likelihood of being UNEMPLOYED. This speaks against the argument that the draft imposed (long-term) economic costs.

[11] Alternatively, Western immigrants may already be well-integrated *regardless of military service*, while racial minorities could potentially stand to benefit the most from their service experience (e.g., in terms of intergroup contact). In this case, we would hypothesize more positive effects for non-Western immigrants.

[12] Given complexities in how earnings from different income sources are reported in the census, we opted to examine unemployment instead of earnings as a measure of economic costs.

Table 3: Effect of Military Service on Integration, 1949–52 Cohorts, Western-origin Immigrants

	Means	OLS	ITT	2SLS	No. of obs.
Panel A: Integration Outcomes					
Naturalized	0.811	0.0409**	-0.0092	-0.0862	9700
		(0.0132)	(0.0082)	(0.0746)	
Residential integration tract	0.988	0.0011	-0.0004	-0.0034	9700
		(0.0007)	(0.0004)	(0.0034)	
Residential integration block group	0.983	0.0013	-0.0007	-0.0063	9700
		(0.0008)	(0.0006)	(0.0053)	
Only English	0.451	0.0435**	-0.0136	-0.137	7000
		(0.0145)	(0.0092)	(0.0913)	
English ability	3.271	0.118***	-0.0222	-0.223	7000
		(0.0246)	(0.0182)	(0.182)	
Non-co-national spouse	0.578	0.0194	-0.0158	-0.148	9700
		(0.0112)	(0.0102)	(0.0972)	
Native-born spouse	0.517	0.0269**	-0.0129	-0.121	9700
		(0.0092)	(0.0109)	(0.104)	
Panel B: Additional Outcomes					
Married	0.737	-0.0147	-0.0116	-0.109	9700
		(0.0105)	(0.0066)	(0.0595)	
Some college	0.639	-0.0211	-0.0088	-0.0825	9700
		(0.0125)	(0.0076)	(0.0678)	
College graduate	0.324	-0.169***	0.0012	0.0116	9700
		(0.0103)	(0.0073)	(0.0682)	
Unemployed	0.137	0.0126	-0.0061	-0.0571	9700
		(0.0088)	(0.0063)	(0.0623)	

Note: * $p < 0.05$, ** $p < 0.01$, *** $p < 0.001$. The table reports results for the effect of DRAFT RISK on integration outcomes. Dependent variables appear in the rows. Observation counts are rounded to comply with Census Bureau policy. Results have been approved for release under FSRDC Project Number 2896 (CBDRB-FY24-P2896-R11579 and CBDRB-FY25-0074).

Turning next to educational outcomes, we find that instrumented military service increases the chances of completing college or university. The effect is especially prevalent among non-Western immigrants. These results are unsurprising given that military service qualifies veterans for the GI

Table 4: Effect of Military Service on Integration, 1949–52 Cohorts, Non-Western-origin Immigrants

	Means	OLS	ITT	2SLS	No. of obs.
Panel A: Integration Outcomes					
Naturalized	0.699	0.118***	-0.0015	-0.0342	15000
		(0.0207)	(0.0061)	(0.143)	
Residential integration tract	0.890	0.0191***	-0.0021	-0.0425	18500
		(0.0028)	(0.0014)	(0.0366)	
Residential integration block group	0.881	0.00215***	-0.0028	-0.0589	18500
		(0.0037)	(0.0018)	(0.0458)	
Only English	0.168	0.0179	-0.003	-0.0622	18500
		(0.0106)	(0.0045)	(0.0922)	
English ability	2.637	0.245***	-0.0124	-0.256	18500
		(0.0422)	(0.0125)	(0.282)	
Non-co-national spouse	0.334	0.0757***	-0.0073	-0.151	18500
		(0.0164)	(0.0046)	(0.0963)	
Native-born spouse	0.241	0.0559***	-0.0059	-0.122	18500
		(0.0141)	(0.0055)	(0.111)	
Panel B: Additional Outcomes					
Married	0.740	0.0315*	0.0180**	0.371***	18500
		(0.0151)	(0.0056)	(0.1070)	
Some college	0.446	0.183***	0.0019	0.04	18500
		(0.0367)	(0.0092)	(0.184)	
College graduate	0.216	-0.025	0.0116*	0.239*	18500
		(0.0251)	(0.0056)	(0.0956)	
Unemployed	0.242	-0.0646***	-0.0035	-0.0721	18500
		(0.0128)	(0.0099)	(0.194)	

Note: * $p < 0.05$, ** $p < 0.01$, *** $p < 0.001$. The table reports results for the effect of DRAFT RISK on integration outcomes. Dependent variables appear in the rows. Observation counts are rounded to comply with Census Bureau policy. Results have been approved for release under FSRDC Project Number 2896 (CBDRB-FY24-P2896-R11579 and CBDRB-FY25-0074).

Bill which subsidizes the costs of higher education (Angrist and Chen 2011). However, they speak against the argument that our null effects are driven by a lack of tangible benefits from military

service. Furthermore, in the light of prominent theories linking educational attainment to social integration (Hainmueller et al. 2017; Hainmueller and Hopkins 2015),[13] these results suggest that – absent such educational benefits – outcomes for non-Western immigrants would have been even *more* negative.

Finally, we consider the effects of instrumented military service on whether an individual is MARRIED at all. For non-Western immigrants, instrumented military service increases the baseline chances of marriage. This is important given that our marriage outcomes are coded 1 if married to a native-born spouse (or non-co-national spouse), and 0 otherwise. Since we find no effect of instrumented military service on marriage to a native-born or to a non-co-national, this must imply that these "extra" marriages among non-Western immigrants are endogamous. These results thus provide further evidence *against* a positive effect of military service on integration outcomes.

Addressing Threats to Inference

Attrition

Given our reliance on the 2000 census, there may be some attrition between the population of men initially exposed to the draft and the sample of individuals who appear in our data. Such attrition comes in two flavors: first, immigrants at risk of being drafted could be more likely to (permanently) emigrate, die, or otherwise be absent in the 2000 census, thereby biasing our results. Fortunately, we can directly test for this possibility by comparing the observed versus expected proportions of draft-eligible men appearing in 2000. As shown in Section A8 of the Supplementary

[13]For instance, Hainmueller et al. (2017, 259) write that higher socio-economic status can lead to "social integration as immigrants can climb the social ladder and gain access to jobs, social activities, or residential areas that are typically dominated by rooted natives, and increased economic status might lower the reservations of rooted natives against immigrants."

Material, we detect no statistically significant deviations from expectations, indicating that attrition is not correlated with draft status.

A second issue concerns attrition that is *unrelated* to draft status. While this dynamic would not bias our results, it does speak to their generalizability – for example, if "low integration types" return permanently to their countries of birth, such that only "high integration types" remain in our sample (Emeriau and Wolton 2024). In such a scenario, our null results may be explained by long-run convergence between non-veterans and veterans with "above-average" integration potential.

While integration potential is of course unobservable, we do attempt to gauge the scope of this problem by comparing birthplace-specific counts of immigrants in the 1970 census against individuals in the 2000 census who report having immigrated before 1970.[14] Details can be found in Section A9 of the Supplementary Material. For the most part, we find that the 2000 counts are comparable to the 1970 counts. We do find a decrease in the counts of men born in the US territories and Canada, which may reflect the ease of travel to these places. As detailed in Section A10 of the Supplementary Material, we conduct robustness checks where we drop these immigrants. Our results are unchanged.

One prominent exception to the pattern just described concerns Mexican-born individuals. Here, we find that there are significantly *more* men in 2000 who claim to have immigrated before 1970 than actually appear in the 1970 census count. Interestingly, we find the same pattern for Mexican-born women who were not subject to the draft (see Figure A9.12), suggesting that the 1970 "undercount" is not simply capturing draft dodging. Rather, we can think of two possibilities: (i) Mexican-born individuals in 2000 were mis-reporting their date of immigration to the United States and / or (ii) Mexican-born individuals in 1970 were not "found" by census-takers. In either case, it appears that a significant portion of Mexican-born individuals in our 2000 sample were not

[14] Due to limitations on the number of results we can export from the Census Bureau's restricted data environment, we make these comparisons on the basis of publicly-available samples from IPUMS (Ruggles et al. 2024).

exposed to the draft lottery,[15] either because they were living in Mexico, or because they had such a transient status in the United States that they escaped the notice of census workers. As such, both the ITT and the 2SLS estimates for Mexican-born are likely to be biased. For robustness, we therefore re-estimate our models dropping the Mexican-born. Our results are unchanged.

Potential exclusion restriction violations

Could the draft lottery affect outcomes though other channels, thereby violating the exclusion restriction? We examine educational deferments as one potential violation. Men at risk of being drafted may have sought college deferments, thereby raising the integration level of the comparison group in a way that is unrelated to military service itself. To examine this possibility, Table A11 in the Supplementary Material compares 2SLS estimates for those 1949–1951 cohorts that could have sought out deferments against the 1952 cohort drafted after the deferments policy ended. Results are similar across both groups, suggesting that deferments are unlikely to be major source of bias.

We also investigate whether non-permanent emigration as a form of draft avoidance may violate the exclusion restriction. Immigrants at risk of being drafted could have emigrated to their origin countries during the war and returned to the United States after the war. In this case, time outside the country could have decreased their likelihood of integration as a function of their draft number but not military service.

Of course, we cannot directly observe such "circular migration" in our data. However, we assume that "circular migration" is easier for men born in Canada and Mexico – due to these countries' proximity to the United States – than for men born in, say, Hungary or Italy. We therefore exclude Mexican- and Canadian-born immigrants in robustness analyses. As shown in Section A10

[15] This account would also be consistent with our finding that Mexican-born are under-represented among compliers. See Section A7 of the Supplementary Material.

of the Supplementary Material, dropping these groups does not substantially affect our estimates, suggesting that circular migration is an unlikely source of bias.

Discussion and Conclusions

Overall, our findings cast doubt on the integrationist view of military service. The strong positive effects of military service evident in our OLS models disappear entirely when we instrument for service using the draft lottery. The disparity in results between the OLS and 2SLS models suggests a self-selection story consistent with historical accounts of immigrants voluntarily serving to demonstrate their patriotism and loyalty to their new country (Burk 1995; Kimura 1988, 196–200).

We should note that our null results contrast with studies from Spain (Bagues and Roth 2023; Cáceres-Delpiano et al. 2021), Argentina (Ronconi and Ramos-Toro 2025), Finland (Finseraas and Kotsadam 2017; Finseraas et al. 2019), and the United States (Carrell et al. 2019; Green and Hyman-Metzger 2024) showing that military service improves intergroup attitudes and behaviors. In the closest study to our research, Mazumder (2017) finds positive effects of World War I military service on naturalization, marriage to native-born Americans, and the adoption of "American" (i.e., Anglo) naming conventions.

In our case, why did military service not have the integrating effects that some scholars have predicted? Racial discrimination in the US military, which was pervasive during the Vietnam era (Bailey 2023; Westheider 1997), could have undermined the intergroup contact mechanism or the socializing power of pro-America messages. However, the consistency of our findings across Western and non-Western immigrants suggests that discrimination is unlikely to explain the null results.

A second possible explanation relates to our focus on (long-term) behavioral outcomes. Initial differences caused by military service may have dissipated over the long run (Angrist and Chen 2011). Examining over four decades of data from the General Social Survey, Green and Hyman-

Metzger (2024) find that the effects of the Vietnam draft on racial attitudes diminished over time, thereby suggesting a pattern of long-term convergence. In line with this interpretation, we show in Section A7 of the Supplementary Material that compliers are on average *initially* more integrated than the full sample – i.e. they immigrated to the US at a younger age, and also came disproportionately from Western, English-speaking countries (particularly Canada). Given this profile, it is possible that undrafted non-veteran compliers may have caught up with their drafted veteran counterparts by the year 2000.[16]

A final possible explanation lies with our choice of case. Although the Vietnam War offers a unique opportunity to address the self-selection challenge, the conflict was deeply unpopular and ended in the ignominious withdrawal of the US military from Saigon in 1975. Whereas veterans who served in "good wars" such as World War II were celebrated as heroes, Vietnam-era veterans are remembered for the hostility and scorn that greeted them upon their return, and many soldiers also questioned the legitimacy of US motives in the conflict (Baskir and Strauss 1978). The specific character of the Vietnam War thus points to military victory, legitimacy and public support as potentially important scope conditions for the integrationist view. We leave these avenues for future research.

[16] In principle, it should eventually be possible to examine outcomes in the 1980 and 1990 censuses. However, since these censuses do not contain information on exact dates of birth, the data need to be linked to the 2000 decennial via Social Security Numbers. At the time of our writing, this data linkage has not yet been completed by the Census Bureau.

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Military Service and Immigrants' Integration: Evidence from the Vietnam Draft Lotteries

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A1 The Restricted-use Long-form 2000 Decennial Census

Identifying an individual's draft number (and hence draft risk) requires data on his exact date of birth. This information first becomes available in the restricted-use microdata files of the long-form 2000 decennial census (Bureau of the Census 2000).

The US Census Bureau makes restricted-use datasets available to researchers with approved projects. Because the disclosure of sensitive and confidential data is prohibited under US law, researchers must agree to protect the data and avoid the disclosure of personal identifiable information and other confidential data. Confidentiality extends to products created using the restricted-use data until the Census Bureau has reviewed and approved those products for release.[17]

This policy has several implications for transparency and replication. First, the Census Bureau limits the volume of output. Because a greater volume of output increases the risk of disclosure, researchers must request essential estimates only. Requests that exceed the volume of output limit will be denied by the Census Bureau. As such, we are unable to report estimates for the covariates in our regression models.

Second, we comply with the Census Bureau's rounding rules: all observation counts are rounded according to the Bureau's rules, and all estimates are rounded to no more than four significant digits.

Third, we do not report median, minimum, or maximum values in Table A4.1 because these values could potentially correspond to actual confidential values.

Fourth, the Census Bureau prohibits the release of replication data but permits the release of replication code. As such, we have posted our replication code at the APSR Dataverse at https://doi.org/10.7910/DVN/O80SKQ. Readers interested in replicating the findings in this paper may apply to the US Census Bureau to access the restricted-use microdata at a Federal Statistical Research

[17] The Census Bureau's review is limited only to compliance with policies to avoid disclosure of confidential information.

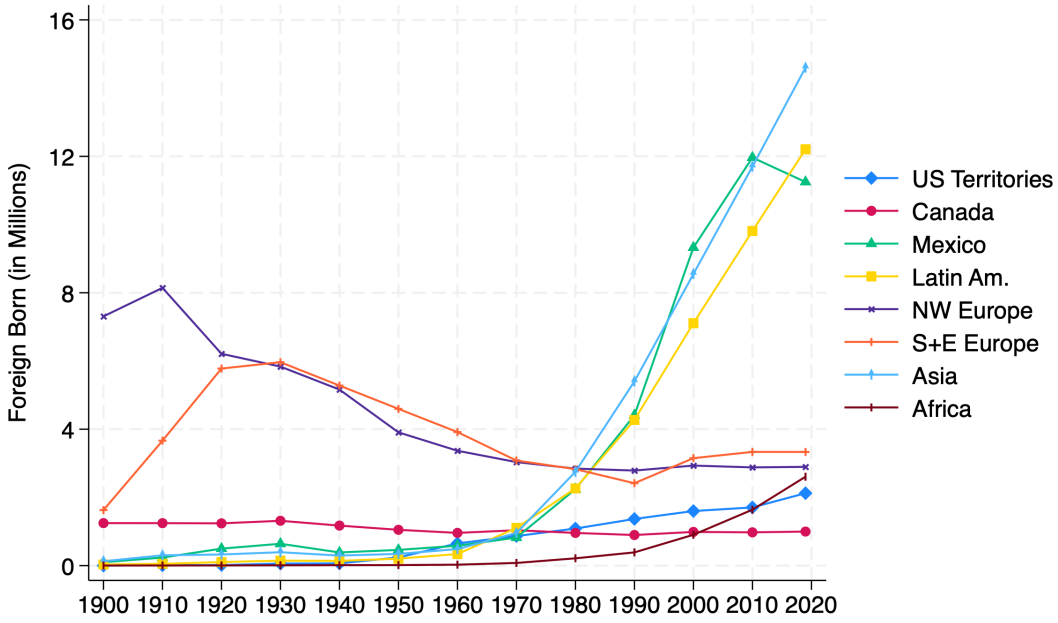
Data Center (RDC). Approved researchers can import the code and run the replication within the RDC. More information about applying for access is available from the Census Bureau's FSRDC website: https://www.census.gov/about/adrm/fsrdc.html.

A2 Vietnam-Era Immigrants in Historical Context

How does the composition of immigrants in our sample compare to both prior and more recent waves of immigration to the United States?

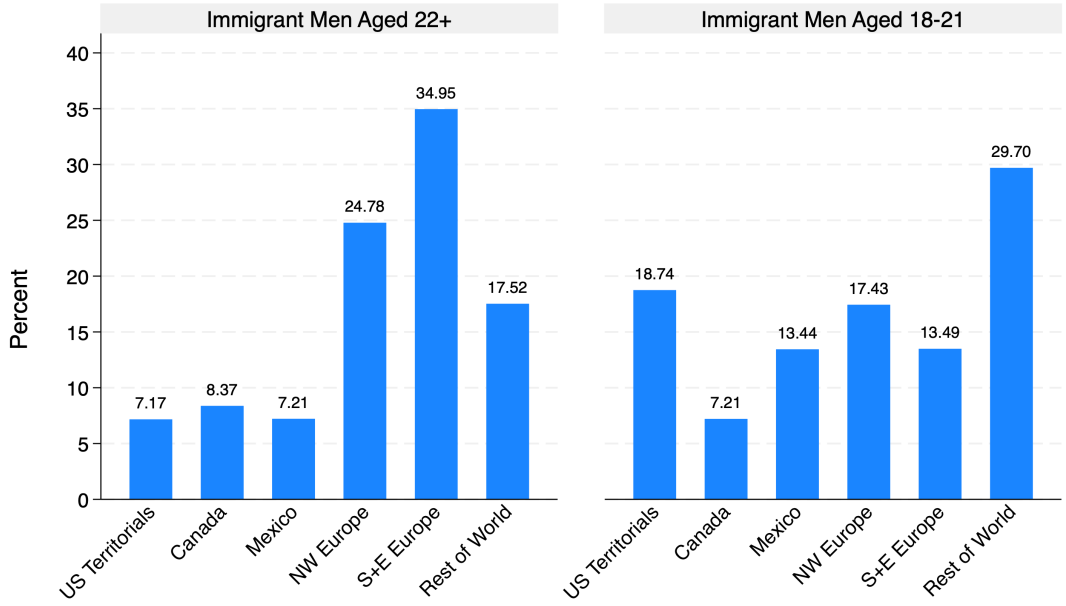
Figure A2.1 shows how the proportions of foreign-born individuals from different regions of the world has changed over time. The data are drawn from samples of the US population census from IPUMS (Ruggles et al. 2024). We observe that, as a result of immigration quotas between the 1920s and 1960s, most foreign-born during this period were of European ancestry. However, the numbers of foreign-born from the rest of the world started to rise dramatically in the 1970s after these quotas were lifted.

Figure A2.1: Origins of the Foreign-Born over Time



Note: The figure displays the number of foreign-born from various countries and regions of the world in each decennial census. Data are from IPUMS (Ruggles et al. 2024).

Figure A2.2: Origins of Draft-Eligible versus Older Immigrants in 1970



Note: The figure displays the percentage of foreign-born from various countries and regions of the world in the 1970 census, split between older men and men of draft age (18-21). Data are from IPUMS (Ruggles et al. 2024).

When considering the raw number of foreign-born in 1970, immigrants of European ancestry make up the the majority. However, this is no longer true when considering the cohorts of draft-eligible men, as shown in Figure A2.2. Due to the opening up of immigration policy, a much larger proportion of young men in 1970 hailed from the "new" immigration countries.

Consideration of these distributions is important if we believe that (i) European immigrants have higher integration potential regardless of draft status, *and* (ii) our null results are due to the over-representation of Europeans in our sample. As we show in Figure A2.2, however, this is not the case – rather, we believe that our sample represents a true mix of individuals from "old" and "new" immigration countries.

A3 IV Assumptions and Additional Details about the Lottery

To interpret our estimates as causal, the instrumental variables framework requires the assumption of monotonicity, or "no defiers." In our context, defiers are individuals who would have evaded the draft under high draft risk, but *who would have joined the military in the face of low draft risk*. We assume our sample contains no defiers, an assumption that we consider to be reasonable given the very costly and risky nature of military service.

A second assumption holds that the instrument (here: draft numbers above and below the cutoff for induction into service) must be independent of potential outcomes. In our context, this is largely assured through randomization introduced by the draft lottery. One concern that arises pertains to the 1969 lottery, which was the only one to use physical randomization, in which 366 blue plastic capsules containing birth dates were placed in a large glass container and drawn by hand. Due to imperfect mixing of the capsules, November and December birthdays were assigned lower RSNs. However, Berinsky and Chatfield (2015) show that individuals born in the last three months of 1969 are not meaningfully different from those born in other times of the year in terms of political outcomes or demographic characteristics correlated with political outcomes. In any case, our models include controls for month of birth.

A4 Descriptive Statistics

Table A4.1: Descriptive Statistics of the Pooled Sample

Variable	Mean	SD	Obs.
Draft risk	0.418	0.493	28500
Veteran	0.168	0.374	28500
Age at immigration	11.82	6.132	28500
Years since immigration	37.66	6.241	28500
Naturalized	0.743	0.437	24500
Residential integration (tract)	0.932	0.126	28500
Residential integration (blkgrp)	0.916	0.131	28500
English only	0.245	0.430	26000
English ability	2.810	0.967	26000
Non-co-national spouse	0.417	0.493	28500
Native-born spouse	0.335	0.472	28500
Married	0.739	0.439	28500
Some college	0.512	0.500	28500
College graduate	0.253	0.435	28500
Unemployed	0.206	0.405	28500

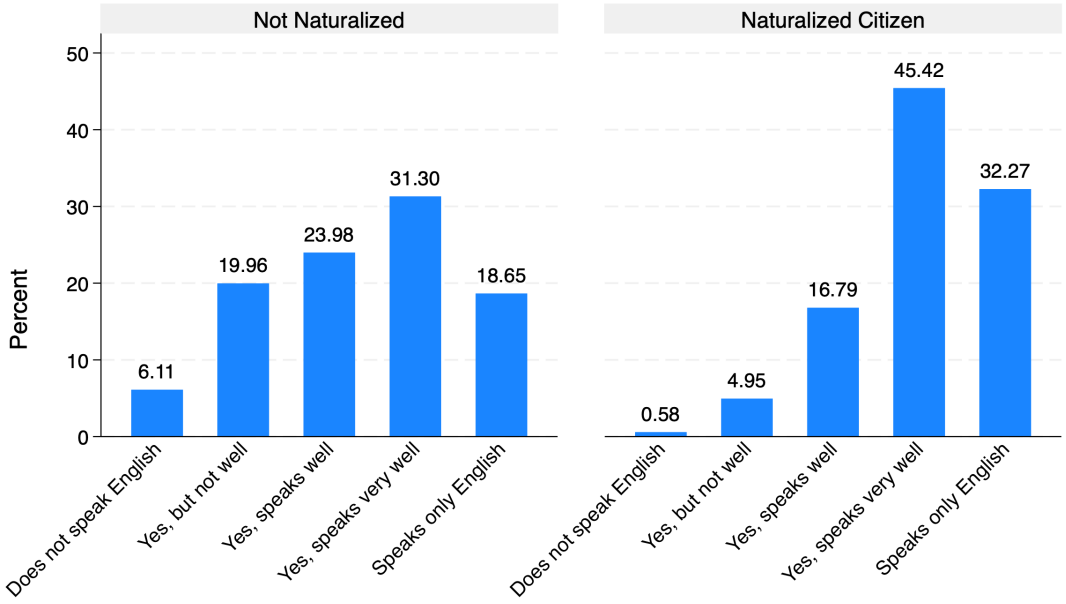
Note: Observation counts are rounded to comply with Census Bureau policy. Results have been approved for release under FSRDC Project Number 2896 (CBDRB-FY24-P2896-R11579 and CBDRB-FY25-0074).

A5 Relationships among Outcomes

Figs. A5.3 - A5.8 display the relationships between pairs of outcome variables. Given limitations on the number of results we can export from the RDC, we create these figures from publicly-available samples of the 2000 census available from IPUMS (Ruggles et al. 2024). Given the large sample sizes (observation counts ranging approximately from 4500 to 8500, depending on the comparison), we do not consider statistical tests very informative for the most part, as even very weak correlations are likely to be statistically significant. Therefore, we rely on a presentation of the raw patterns.

Figure A5.3 shows that immigrants who are naturalized also tend to be more linguistically integrated than their non-naturalized counterparts.

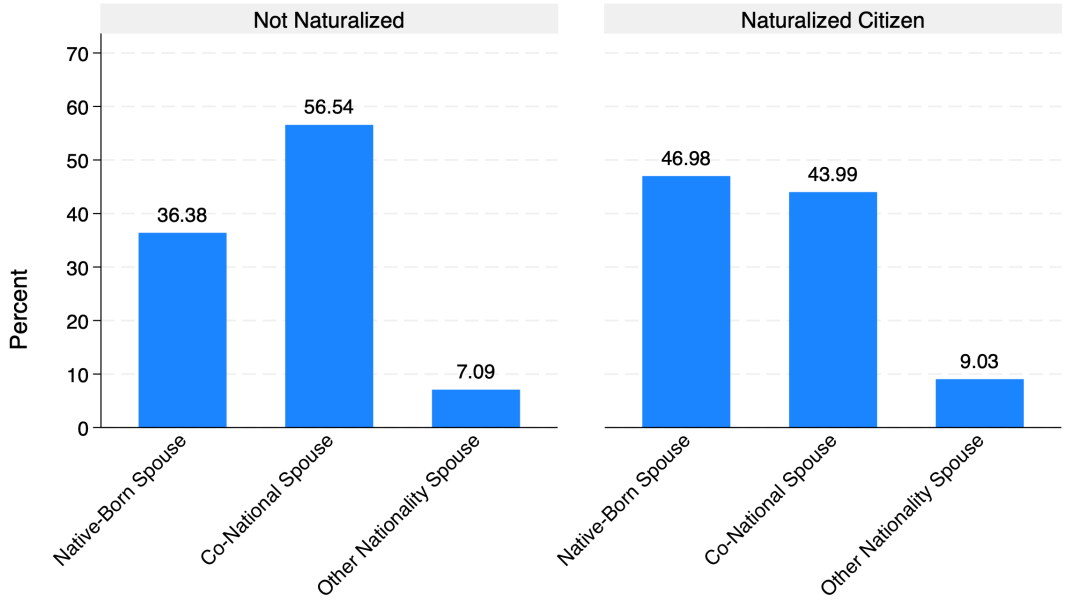
Figure A5.3: Naturalization and English Language Ability



Note: The figure shows the relationship between naturalization and English-language ability among immigrants in the 2000 census who meet our sample selection criteria. Data are from IPUMS (Ruggles et al. 2024).

Naturalized citizens are also more likely to be married to a native-born spouse, while non-naturalized immigrants are more likely to marry a co-national spouse (Figure A5.4).

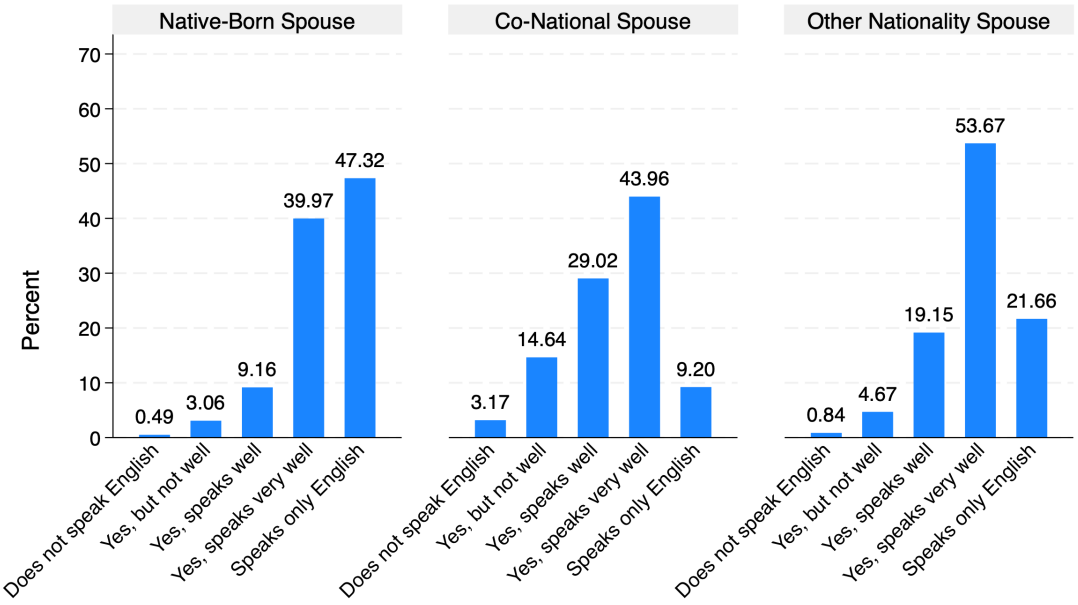
Figure A5.4: Naturalization and Inter-marriage



Note: The figure shows the relationship between naturalization and marriage outcomes among immigrants in the 2000 census who meet our sample selection criteria. Data are from IPUMS (Ruggles et al. 2024).

Marriage to a native-born (as opposed to co-national) spouse is also indicative of higher (lower) levels of linguistic integration (Figure A5.5). Intermediate patterns can be found among immigrants married to spouses of a third nationality.

Figure A5.5: English Language Ability and Intermarriage

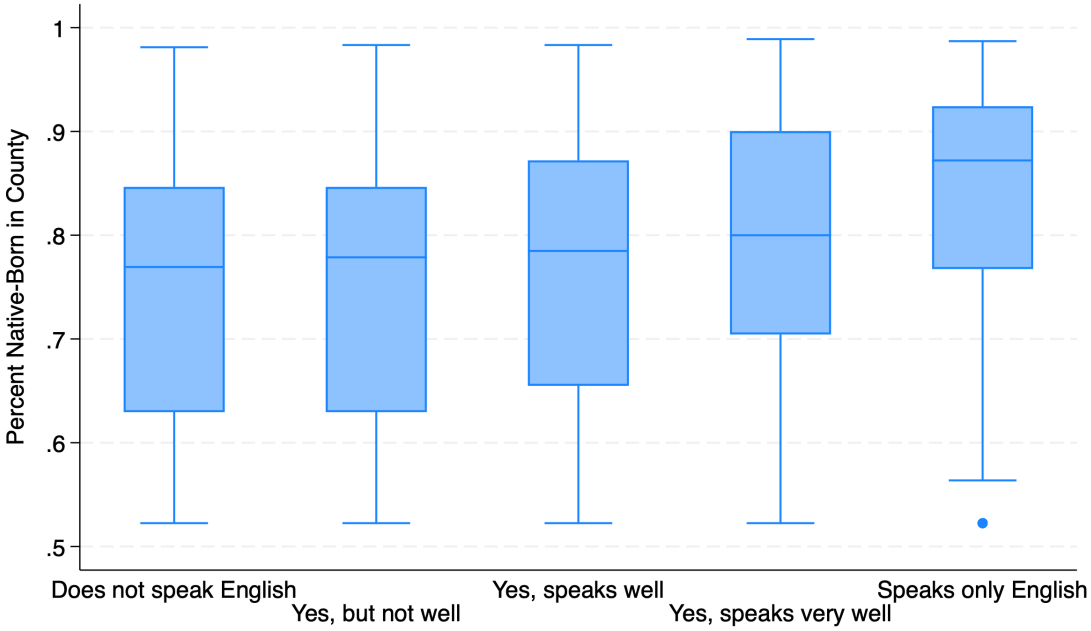


Note: The figure shows the relationship between English language ability and marriage outcomes among immigrants in the 2000 census who meet our sample selection criteria. Data are from IPUMS (Ruggles et al. 2024).

Turning to the residential integration variables, note that the smallest geographic unit in the publicly-available IPUMS data is the county. We therefore calculate residential integration at this level of aggregation. By contrast, our results in the main text capture residential integration at much more granular census tracts and block groups.

Figure A5.6 shows that immigrants who are more lingustically integrated also live in counties with higher shares of native born.

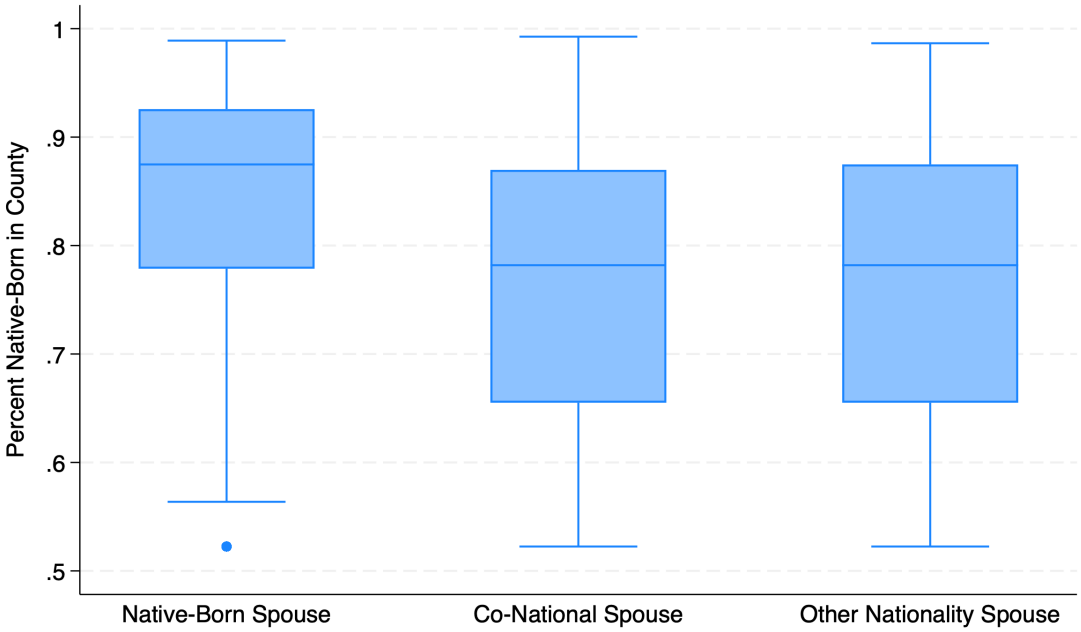
Figure A5.6: Residential Integration and English Language Ability



Note: The figure shows the relationship between residential integration and English-language ability among immigrants in the 2000 census who meet our sample selection criteria. Data are from IPUMS (Ruggles et al. 2024).

Individuals married to a native-born spouse also live in areas with a greater share of native-born (Figure A5.7). However, we do not find different residential integration patterns between individuals married to a co-national versus a third nationality.

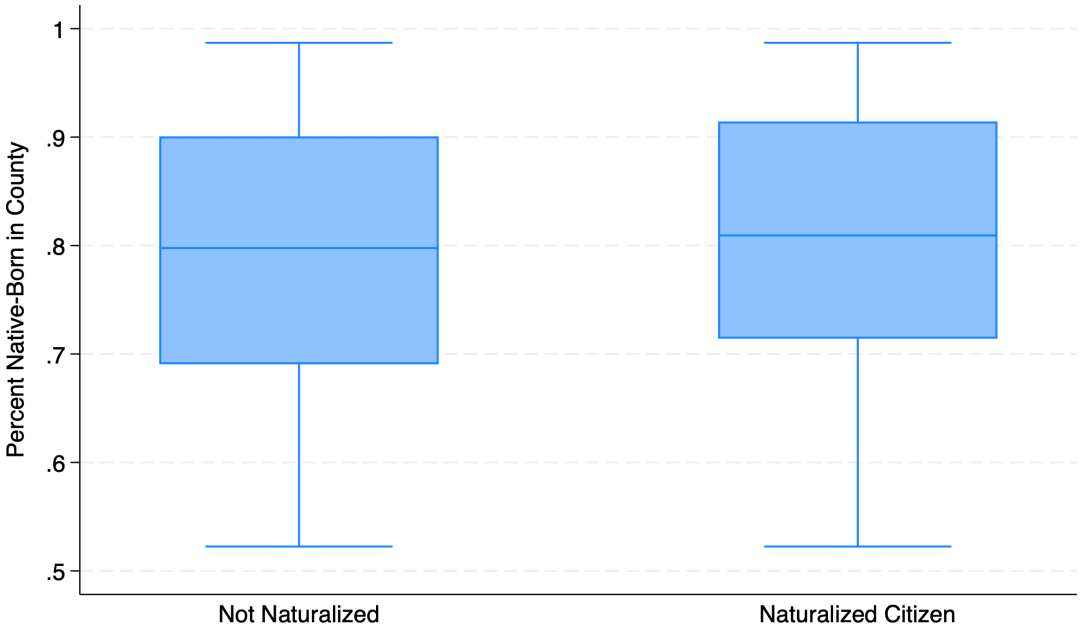
Figure A5.7: Residential Integration and Inter-marriage



Note: The Figure shows the relationship between residential integration and marriage outcomes among immigrants in the 2000 census who meet our sample selection criteria. Data are from IPUMS (Ruggles et al. 2024).

Finally, we detect a very small difference in the expected direction for the relationship between residential integration and naturalization: naturalized immigrants live in counties with on average 1pp higher share of native-born, compared to non-naturalized immigrants (t = -4.12, N=8580).

Figure A5.8: Residential Integration and Naturalization



Note: The Figure shows the relationship between residential integration and naturalization outcomes among immigrants in the 2000 census who meet our sample selection criteria. Data are from IPUMS (Ruggles et al. 2024).

A6 First Stage Results

Table A6.2 presents the results of military service regressed on draft risk for the pooled sample, immigrants born in Western countries, and immigrants born in non-Western countries.

Table A6.2: Effect of Draft Risk on Military Service

	1949–1952	1948	1949	1950	1951	1952	1953
				Panel A: Pooled sample			
Draft risk	0.0678***	0.0192	0.0506***	0.0691***	0.0641***	0.0942***	0.0226**
	(0.00461)	(0.00983)	(0.00967)	(0.00949)	(0.00885)	(0.00968)	(0.008)
Observations	28500	7700	7300	6700	7000	7400	7800
F	216.5	3.822	27.38	53.00	52.47	94.86	7.987
				Panel B: Western immigrants			
Draft risk	0.107***	0.0382*	0.0921***	0.0747***	0.119***	0.152***	0.0203
	(0.00896)	(0.0178)	(0.0170)	(0.0174)	(0.0175)	(0.0206)	(0.017)
Observations	9700	3000	2700	2400	2300	2300	2200
F	142.5	4.598	26.21	18.45	45.92	54.50	1.414
				Panel C: Non-Western immigrants			
Draft risk	0.0484***	0.00551	0.074*	0.0654***	0.0377***	0.0697***	0.0236**
	(0.00523)	(0.0115)	(0.0111)	(0.0111)	(0.00998)	(0.0106)	(0.0895)
Observations	18500	4800	4700	4200	4700	5200	5600
F	85.67	0.231	6.078	34.85	14.24	43.16	6.92

Note: * $p < 0.05$, ** $p < 0.01$, *** $p < 0.001$. The dependent variable is MILITARY SERVICE. All models include AGE AT IMMIGRATION, YEAR OF BIRTH, and MONTH OF BIRTH as controls as well as BIRTHPLACE fixed effects. Observation counts are rounded to comply with Census Bureau policy. Results have been approved for release under FSRDC Project Number 2896 (CBDRB-FY24-P2896-R11579 and CBDRB-FY24-0364).

A7 Profiling Compliers

In the instrumental variables framework, treatment effects are only defined for the population of COMPLIERS: that is, those individuals who would serve in the military if their draft number was called, and who would not serve otherwise. We differentiate COMPLIERS from both ALWAYS-TAKERS (e.g. individuals who volunteer for service regardless of their draft number) and NEVER-TAKERS (e.g. individuals who would not serve despite their draft number).

To provide some more context for interpreting our causal quantities of interest, we compare the demographic profiles of these three populations, implementing the procedure described in Marbach and Hangartner 2020. In brief, this procedure estimates the covariate means ($\hat{\mu}$) amongst observable always-takers (i.e., DRAFT RISK = 0, MILITARY SERVICE = 1) and observable never-takers (i.e., DRAFT RISK = 1, MILITARY SERVICE = 0). Call these quantities $\hat{\mu}_{at}$ and $\hat{\mu}_{nt}$, respectively. Further, since the instrument is independently assigned, we can assume the same covariate distributions for the unobservable always-takers (for whom DRAFT RISK = 1) and never-takers (for whom DRAFT RISK = 0).

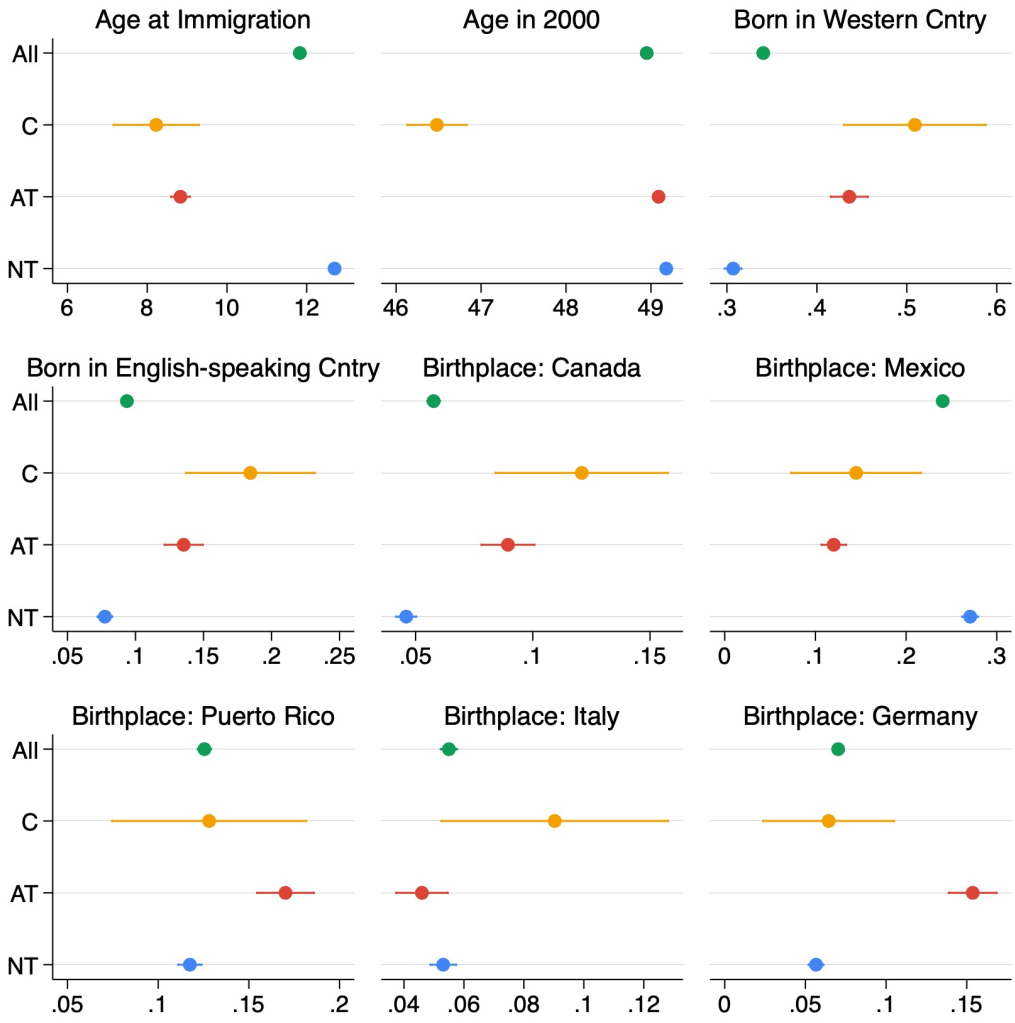
Finally, since we also know the proportions ($\hat{\pi}$) of always-takers, never-takers and compliers, as well as $\hat{\mu}$ for the entire sample, we can simply "back out" the covariate means for compliers ($\hat{\mu}_c$) using the following formula:

$$\hat{\mu}_c = \frac{1}{\hat{\pi}_c}\hat{\mu} - \frac{\hat{\pi}_{nt}}{\hat{\pi}_c}\hat{\mu}_{nt} - \frac{\hat{\pi}_{at}}{\hat{\pi}_c}\hat{\mu}_{at}$$

Since our population of study (i.e. men born between 1949 and 1952) is already fairly homogeneous with respect to pre-treatment characteristics, we focus on AGE AT IMMIGRATION and indicators for BIRTHPLACE. The results are presented graphically in Figure A7.9. Numerical results can be found in Table A7.3. We observe that compliers tend to be younger than the overall sample. They also tend to have immigrated to the United States at a younger age. Further, compli-

ers are more likely to have been born in a Western, English-speaking country. In particular, we find an over-representation of Canadians and an under-representation of Mexicans amongst compliers.

Figure A7.9: Complier Profiles: Pooled Sample



Note: The figure displays the estimated covariate means and bootstrapped confidence intervals for the full sample (All), Compliers (C), Always-takers (AT) and Never-takers (NT). Results have been approved for release under FSRDC Project Number 2896 (CBDRB-FY24-P2896-R11579).

Table A7.3: Complier Profiles: Full Results for the Pooled Sample

	Mean	Standard Error
Panel A: Full Sample		
Age at immigration	11.83	0.0368
Age in 2000	48.95	0.0067
Born in a Western country	0.340	0.0029
Born in an English-speaking country	0.0937	0.0018
Birthplace: Canada	0.0577	0.0014
Birthplace: Mexico	0.241	0.0026
Birthplace: Puerto Rico	0.1255	0.0019
Birthplace: Italy	0.055	0.0014
Birthplace: Germany	0.0703	0.0016
Panel B: Compliers		
Age at immigration	8.225	0.5479
Age in 2000	46.48	0.1793
Born in a Western country	0.509	0.0402
Born in an English-speaking country	0.1845	0.0242
Birthplace: Canada	0.1209	0.0188
Birthplace: Mexico	0.1449	0.0366
Birthplace: Puerto Rico	0.1281	0.0273
Birthplace: Italy	0.0903	0.0193
Birthplace: Germany	0.0644	0.0207
Panel C: Always-Takers		
Age at immigration	8.834	0.122
Age in 2000	49.09	0.0265
Born in a Western country	0.4361	0.0105
Born in an English-speaking country	0.1354	0.0072
Birthplace: Canada	0.0894	0.0058
Birthplace: Mexico	0.1202	0.007
Birthplace: Puerto Rico	0.1702	0.008
Birthplace: Italy	0.046	0.0044

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Table A7.3 – continued from previous page

	Mean	Standard Error
Birthplace: Germany	0.1537	0.0076
Panel D: Never-Takers		
Age at immigration	12.7	0.063
Age in 2000	49.18	0.0113
Born in a Western country	0.307	0.0048
Born in an English-speaking country	0.0775	0.0028
Birthplace: Canada	0.046	0.0022
Birthplace: Mexico	0.2707	0.0045
Birthplace: Puerto Rico	0.1175	0.0033
Birthplace: Italy	0.0531	0.0022
Birthplace: Germany	0.0566	0.0024

Note: Bootstrapped standard errors reported. Results have been approved for release under FSRDC Project Number 2896 (CBDRB-FY24-P2896-R11579 and CBDRB-FY24-0364).

A8 Attrition and Draft Status

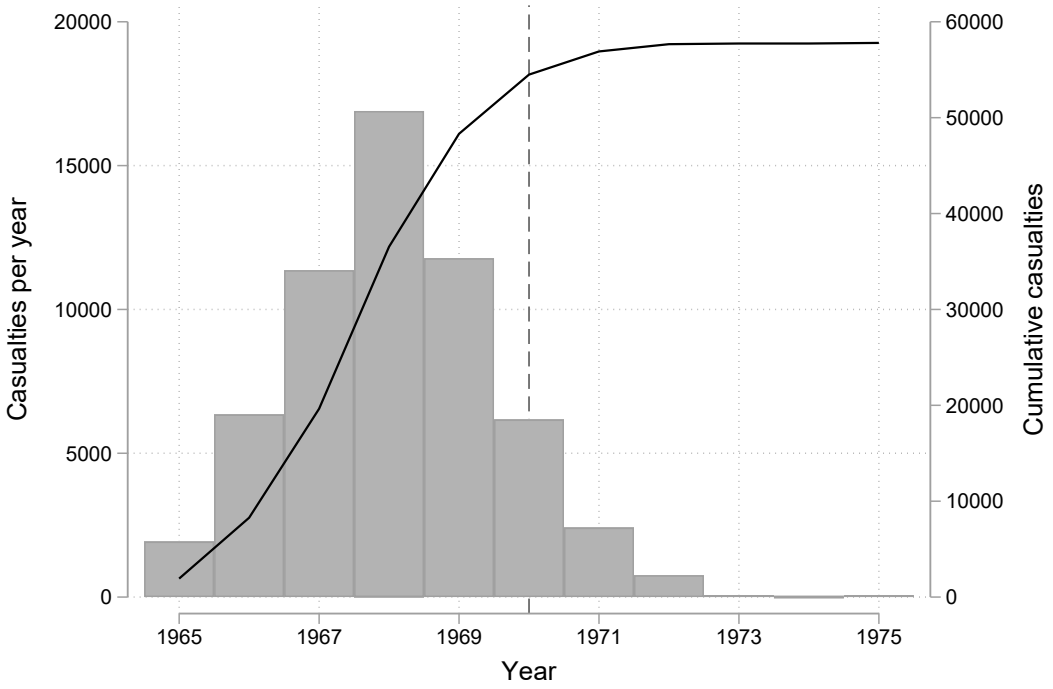
In our study, we observe integration outcomes in the year 2000, nearly three decades after military service during the Vietnam War. Although this long gap allows us to examine whether military service contributes to durable, long-term integration, one challenge that arises is non-random attrition over time. Sources of non-random attrition include excess mortality among servicemembers during the war and veterans after the war, permanent emigration during the war as a form of draft dodging, and permanent emigration after the war – all of which may be plausibly correlated with treatment status (i.e., draft risk).

Existing scholarship and data suggest that mortality-related selective attrition is unlikely to bias our results. US military fatalities during the Vietnam War are overwhelmingly concentrated during the pre-1970 period, prior to the advent of the draft lottery (US National Archives 2022). Of the nearly 58,000 deaths incurred between 1965–1975 – from the beginning of combat operations until US withdrawal and the fall of South Vietnam – approximately 84% date to 1965–1969 (see Figure A8.10). Moreover, an analysis of the effects of conscription on long-term mortality that utilizes data from the National Center for Health Statistics finds little evidence of a draft risk effect regardless of educational attainment and nativity status (Conley and Heerwig 2012, 851).

Setting aside mortality concerns, non-random attrition could still affect our sample because our population of interest consists of immigrants who could in principle return to their countries of origin during or after the war. To examine this possible source of bias, we compare the expected proportion of individuals who were at risk of being drafted in the 2000 decennial against the observed proportion of individuals in our sample. In the absence of selective attrition, the expected and observed proportions should be statistically indistinguishable.

To calculate the expected proportion of at-risk men, we first assume that births are distributed uniformly across the year. We then divide the administrative processing number for year t (the highest draft number called) by the number of days in year t. We then compare that result against

Figure A8.10: US Military Fatalities in the Vietnam War, 1965–1975



Note: The figure displays yearly casualties and cumulative casualties for the period 1965–1975, covering the start of combat operations through US withdrawal. The dashed vertical line indicates the first year in which the draftees were inducted in to service on the basis of the draft lottery. Data are from the US National Archives (2022).

the proportion of at-risk men in our sample. Table A8.4 shows the results. We detect no evidence that attrition is correlated with draft status.

Table A8.4: Attrition Analysis, 1949–1952 Cohort

Predicted	Pooled sample	Western-origin	Non-western-origin
0.417	0.418 N = 28500	0.418 N = 9700	0.418 N = 18500

Note: * $p < 0.05$, ** $p < 0.01$, *** $p < 0.001$. The table reports results for the difference between the expected and observed proportions of draft-eligible men. Observation counts are rounded to comply with Census Bureau policy. Results have been approved for release under FSRDC Project Number 2896 (CBDRB-FY24-P2896-R11579).

Table A8.5: Attrition Analysis, Subgroup Results for Populations Present in 2000 Census

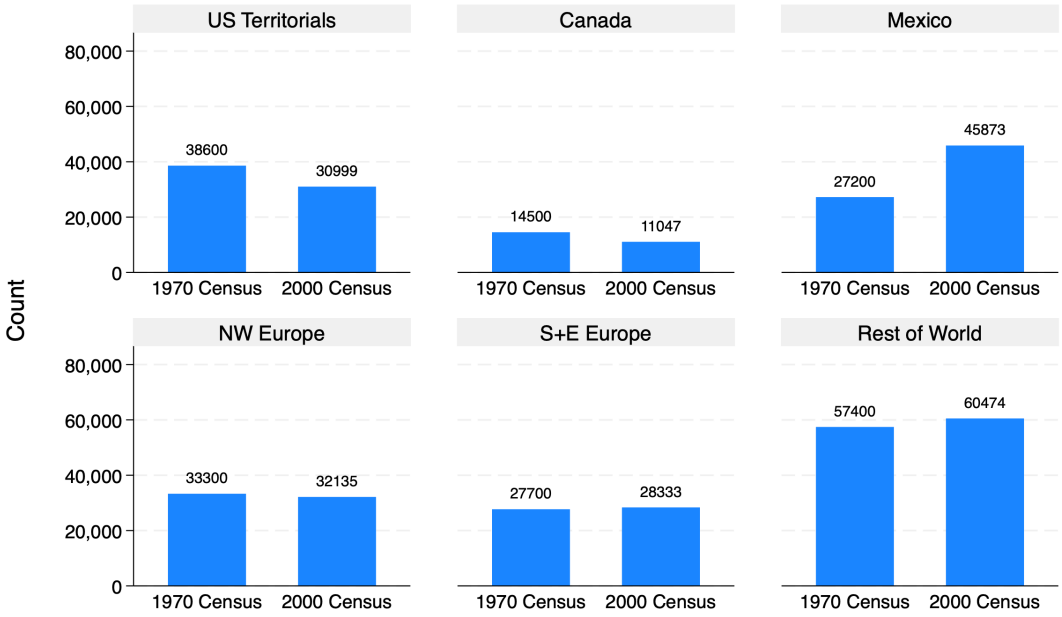
Predicted	Germans	Italians	Mexicans	Non-Mexicans	Puerto Ricans	From English-speaking country
0.417	0.432 N = 2000	0.408 N = 1600	0.412 N = 6800	0.419 N = 21500	0.417 N = 3600	0.408 N = 2700

Note: * $p < 0.05$, ** $p < 0.01$, *** $p < 0.001$. The table reports results for the difference between the expected and observed proportions of draft-eligible men. Observation counts are rounded to comply with Census Bureau policy. Results have been approved for release under FSRDC Project Number 2896 (CBDRB-FY25-0074).

A9 Comparing 2000 and 1970 Census Counts

Our analysis conditions on being present in the 2000 long-form census, which results in a slightly different sample compared to the ideal design comprising all individuals at risk of being drafted in 1970–1972. To gauge the correspondence between our 2000 sample and the population of men who were subject to the draft in 1970-1972, we compare birthplace-specific counts of individuals present in the 1970 census against individuals in the 2000 census who report having immigrated before 1970. Due to limitations on the number of results we can export from the Census Bureau's restricted data environment, we make these comparisons on the basis of publicly-available samples from IPUMS (Ruggles et al. 2024). The results are shown in Figure A9.11.

Figure A9.11: Comparing 2000 and 1970 Census Samples

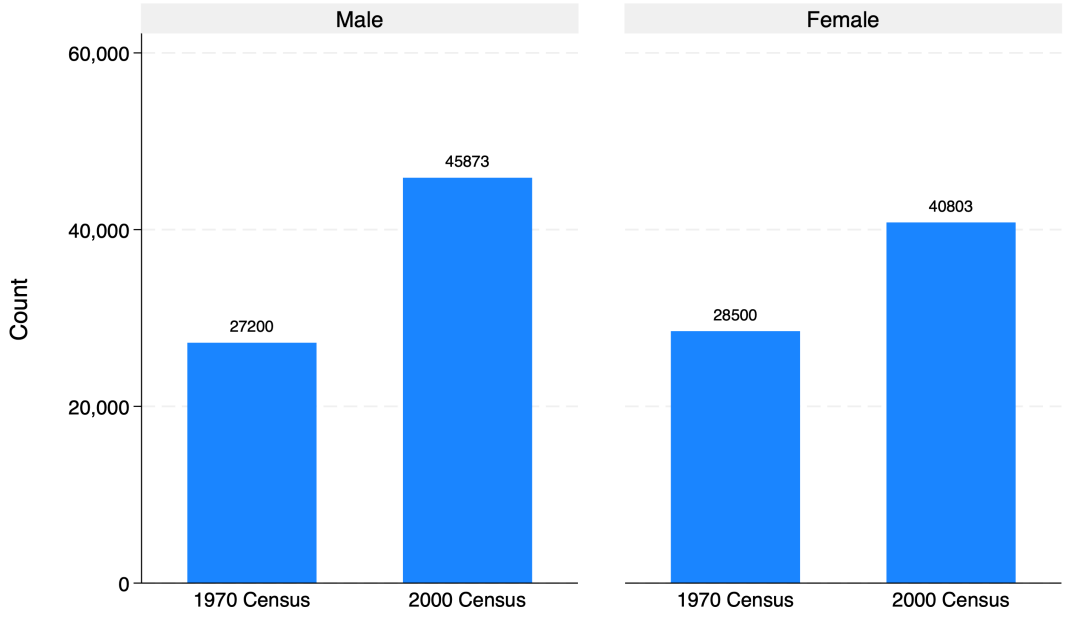


Note: The Figure shows birthplace-specific counts of draft-eligible men from the 1970 and 2000 census samples. Data are from IPUMS (Ruggles et al. 2024). Small discrepancies between the reported numbers and actual full counts may arise due to sampling.

For the most part, we find that the 2000 counts are comparable to the 1970 counts. We do find a decrease in the counts of men born in the US territories and Canada, which may reflect the ease of travel to these places. For robustness, we conduct analyses excluding these immigrants (see Appendix Table A10). Our results are unchanged.

One prominent exception to the pattern just described concerns Mexican-born individuals. Here, we find that there are significantly *more* men in 2000 who claim to have immigrated before 1970 than actually appear in the 1970 census count. Interestingly, we find the same pattern for Mexican-born women (see Figure A9.12). Because women were not subject to the draft, this pattern suggests that the 1970 "undercount" is not simply capturing draft dodging. Rather, we can think of two possibilities: (i) Mexican-born individuals in 2000 are mis-reporting their date of immigration to the United States and / or (ii) Mexican-born individuals in 1970 were not "found" by census-takers. In either case, it appears that a significant portion of Mexican-born individuals in our 2000 sample were not exposed to the draft lottery – either because they were living in Mexico, or because they had such a transient status in the United States that they escaped the notice of census works. As such, both the ITT and the 2SLS estimates for Mexican-born are likely to be biased. We therefore re-estimate our models dropping the Mexican-born in our robustness checks. Column 2 of Table A10.6 in the following section shows that our conclusions remain unchanged.

Figure A9.12: Mexican-born Individuals in 2000 and 1970



Note: The Figure shows counts of Mexican-born men and women from the 1970 and 2000 census samples born between 1949 and 1952 and claiming presence in the US since 1970. Data are from IPUMS (Ruggles et al. 2024).

A10 Excluding Specific National-Origin Groups

A potential violation of the exclusion restriction relates to the issue of non-permanent (or circular) migration. Briefly, the idea is that immigrants at risk of being drafted could have returned to their home countries during the Vietnam War, but then re-immigrated to the United States after draft dodgers were pardoned. To the extent that these temporary stints in their home countries depressed integration outcomes amongst those "assigned to treatment", we might observe negative ITT and 2SLS estimates.

For robustness, we re-estimate our 2SLS models dropping individuals from Mexico and Canada. The assumption is that individuals born in these two countries should be best positioned (due to geographic proximity) to take advantage of opportunities for circular migration. Thus, to the extent that circular migration is driving our results, we may observe *more positive* results when dropping these national-origin groups.

In addition, we noted discrepancies in the counts of men in the US territories, Canada, and Mexico between the 1970 and 2000 censuses (see Appendix Section A8). The numbers are especially "off" for Mexican-born men. To recap, we believe that some Mexican-born may not have been actually exposed to the draft lottery, thereby biasing our ITT and 2SLS estimates. This is an additional reason for examining how our results change after dropping the Mexican-born.

Table A10 presents our findings. In general, we observe the same consistent null results of military service as reported in the main text.

Table A10.6: Effect of Military Service on Integration Outcomes, 1949-1952 Birth Cohorts by Sub-group

	Non-Canadian Westerners N = 8000	Non-Mexican Non-Westerners N = 12000	Not born in US Territories N = 24500
Panel A: Integration Outcomes			
Naturalized	-0.0884	0.0438	
	(0.0928)	(0.174)	
Residential integration (tract)	-0.0032	-0.0021	-0.0259
	(0.0042)	(0.163)	(0.0209)
Residential integration (block group)	-0.0075	-0.0079	-0.0340
	(0.0063)	(0.201)	(0.0271)
Only English		-0.1076	-0.112 †
		(0.117)	(0.079)
English ability		-0.062	-0.236 †
		(0.31)	(0.207)
Non-co-national spouse	-0.163	0.125	-0.0292
	(0.119)	(0.122)	(0.0919)
Native-born spouse	-0.144	-0.177	-0.138
	(0.126)	(0.146)	(0.0845)
Panel B: Additional Outcomes			
Married	-0.106	0.408**	0.1219
	(0.0725)	(0.143)	(0.0756)
Some college	-0.0535	0.208	-0.0766
	(0.0750)	(0.135)	(0.0998)
College graduate	-0.0364	0.307**	0.0876
	(0.0742)	(0.110)	(0.0582)
Unemployed	-0.0846	-0.290*	-0.0668
	(0.0725)	(0.137)	(0.0111)

Note: * $p < 0.05$, ** $p < 0.01$, *** $p < 0.001$. † indicates N = 22000 for these models only. The table reports 2SLS results for the effect of DRAFT RISK on integration outcomes, separating out individuals from Canada and Mexico. Dependent variables appear in the rows. All models include AGE AT IMMIGRATION, YEAR OF BIRTH, and MONTH OF BIRTH as controls as well as BIRTHPLACE fixed effects. Observation counts are rounded to comply with Census Bureau policy. Results have been approved for release under FSRDC Project Number 2896 (CBDRB-FY24-P2896-R11579 and CBDRB-FY25-0074).

A11 Student Deferments

During the Vietnam War, a complex system of deferments and exemptions allowed men to avoid military service. While many of the deferments were gradually eliminated, student deferments, which were granted to men enrolled full-time in post-secondary education, were among the last to be abolished. Student deferments violate the exclusion restriction if immigrants at risk of being drafted were more likely to enroll in college and if their resulting educational attainment increased their likelihood of integrating into the national mainstream.

To examine this possibility, we compare results for the 1952 birth cohort, for whom educational deferments were unavailable, against results for earlier cohorts. We find no systematic differences between the 1952 cohort and earlier cohorts and null results throughout.

Table A11.7: Effect of Military Service on Integration Outcomes by Individual Birth Cohort, Pooled Sample

	1949	1950	1951	1952
Panel A: Integration Outcomes				
Naturalized	-0.186	-0.190	0.0978	-0.429
	(0.216)	(0.113)	(0.192)	(0.107)
	N = 6300	N = 5700	N = 6100	N = 6600
Residential integration tract	-0.0852	-0.0205	0.0032	-0.001
	(0.103)	(0.0342)	(0.0107)	(0.0263)
	N = 7300	N = 6700	N = 7000	N = 7500
Residential integration block group	-0.0901	-0.0296	-0.0188	-0.0053
	(0.107)	(0.0374)	(0.0104)	(0.0227)
	N = 7300	N = 6700	N = 7000	N = 7500
Only English	-0.108	-0.0242	-0.123	-0.182
	(0.155)	(0.125)	(0.156)	(0.109)
	N = 6600	N = 6000	N = 6300	N = 6800
English ability	-0.0118	-0.331	-0.575	-0.222
	(0.342)	(0.265)	(0.387)	(0.204)
	N = 6600	N = 6000	N = 6300	N = 6800
Non-co-national spouse	0.227	-0.157	-0.253	0.111
	(0.219)	(0.162)	(0.196)	(0.128)
	N = 7300	N = 6700	N = 7000	N = 7400
Native-born spouse	0.115	-0.190	-0.349*	-0.0401
	(0.200)	(0.146)	(0.136)	(0.102)
	N = 7300	N = 6700	N = 7000	N = 7400
Panel B: Additional Outcomes				
Married	-0.0222	0.297*	0.115	0.0391
	(0.193)	(0.149)	(0.186)	(0.102)

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	1949	1950	1951	1952
	N = 7300	N = 6700	N = 7000	N = 7400
Some college	0.0676	-0.0572	-0.137	0.0341
	(0.204)	(0.217)	(0.171)	(0.0852)
	N = 7300	N = 6700	N = 7000	N = 7400
College graduate	0.388	0.792	0.0104	0.100
	(0.214)	(0.144)	(0.163)	(0.0714)
	N = 7300	N = 6700	N = 7000	N = 7400
Unemployed	-0.219	-0.185	0.0338	0.053
	(0.163)	(0.130)	(0.182)	(0.106)
	N = 7300	N = 6700	N = 7000	N = 7400

Note: * $p < 0.05$, ** $p < 0.01$, *** $p < 0.001$. The table reports results for the effect of DRAFT RISK on integration outcomes by birth cohort. Dependent variables appear in the rows. All models include controls for AGE AT IMMIGRATION, YEAR OF BIRTH, and MONTH OF BIRTH as well as BIRTHPLACE fixed effects. Observation counts are rounded to comply with Census Bureau policy. Results have been approved for release under FSRDC Project Number 2896 (CBDRB-FY24-0364 and CBDRB-FY25-0074).

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